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YALE POLITICAL MONTHLY

March 1980 Vol. 1 No. 3

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Joseph B. Rose

Food And Politics In Bangladesh
Sally Bachman

The Dangerous Balance In World Power
Jay Young

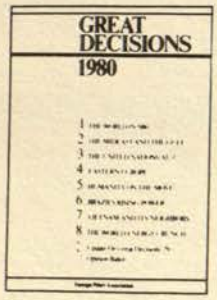
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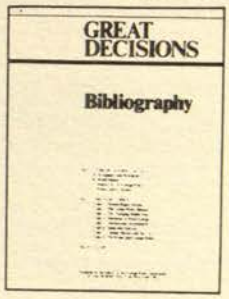
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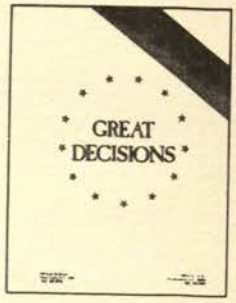
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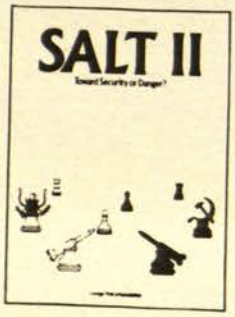


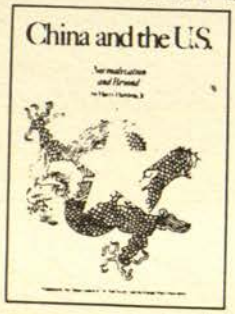


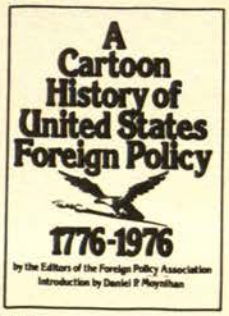


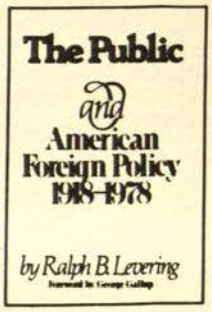
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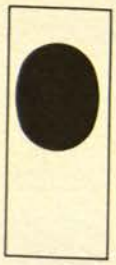


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Contents

Soviet Oil Demand: The Unstable Future 3
Joseph B. Rose

Food And Politics In Bangladesh 8
Sally Bachman

The Dangerous Balance In World Power 17
Jay Young

Hobbes, Aristotle And The Draft 24
Peter Ahrensdorf

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Soviet Oil Demand: The Unstable Future

Joseph B. Rose

The recent Russian invasion of Afghanistan has prompted many analysts of Soviet behavior to try to explain why the Soviets have adopted an aggressive policy in Central Asia. While many experts have focused on Russian fears of Islamic revolutionary fervor and on historical trends of Russian expansionism in the Afghanistan region, they have mostly downplayed the factor of future Soviet oil needs. However, a CIA study of the global oil situation, "The World Oil Market in the Years Ahead" (8/79), reveals the likelihood of a serious Soviet oil predicament in the 1980's; this information may enable us to understand the key motives behind bold Russian actions in and around the Middle East.

Most people tend to overlook Soviet oil problems because Russia, the world's largest oil producer, is not in the dangerous position of depending heavily on foreign oil. Until recently this approach was essentially correct; Soviet oil production has expanded rapidly since World War II, reaching 11.4* million barrels per day in 1978, a full million barrels more than any other nation. The Russians rely heavily on this huge production capacity for both economic and political purposes. Oil exports of one million b/d to the non-Communist countries account for almost half of Soviet hard-currency merchandise exports; this hard-currency oil income is important to the Russians because it permits them to buy advanced technology from the west. The Russians also use oil exports of almost two million b/d to other Communist countries (mostly in Eastern Europe) as a means of political and economic control; virtually all of the Communist countries excluding China are dependent on Soviet oil.

The role of Russian oil in the Communist economies is clear; however, current projections of decline in Soviet oil production in the 1980's threaten to erode this bulwark of the Soviet system. Russian oil production is already showing signs of weakness. According to the CIA, annual production increments have declined from 640,000 b/d in 1975 to virtually none in early 1979 and production is stagnating or declining in most major Soviet oil producing regions. Only the huge Samotlor field in western Siberia which supplies twenty-five percent of national output is continuing to expand production; yet, even this source is beginning to reach peak production levels and

* All statistics in this article are drawn from the CIA publication, "The World Oil Market in the Years Ahead" (ER79-10327U) August, 1979

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output will soon decline. The CIA predicts that by 1982, yields from all the current oil producing regions in the Soviet Union will be in serious decline. Thus the Russians will face a drop in oil production from over eleven million b/d in 1979 to around nine million b/d in 1985. Losses of U.S. oil technology might allow production levels to fall even lower, to eight million b/d. Even if the Soviets have great success in their development efforts in possible oil regions like eastern Siberia or the Barents, Kar, and Caspian Seas, these potential reserves could have little effect on Soviet production for at least a decade.

Although the Russians are trying hard to maintain current levels of oil production by increased drilling, these attempts seem unlikely to alter downward trends in production because significant gains in new capacity have been needed for at least five years just to compensate for depletion of existing oil fields. The Samotlor field has been responsible for this compensation as well as for most output growth for the past decade. As Samotlor begins its decline in the next year or two, no new area seems ready to assume its burden and prevent a sharp drop in Soviet oil production. The often discussed oil reserves of about thirty-five billion barrels cannot be easily exploited and are definitely not available for short term amelioration of the production decline. Difficulties involved in extracting these reserves, their often low quality, and lack of adequate technology make further exploitation of current reserves a goal for the distant future, not the first half of the 1980's. The additional failure of Soviet exploration to discover new and readily available reserves insures production decline.

The Russians have known of their impending predicament for a number of years but until recently they have taken few steps to deal with it. In 1977 Brezhnev announced that fuel development was to become a major priority of the Soviet Union. Since then the Soviets have allocated most of their investment dollars to oil production development and alternative fuels. However, oil exploration is still inadequate and alternative fuels have presented problems of their own. Although big natural gas reserves have been developed in Tyumen Oblast in western Siberia, problems posed by climate, terrain, and transportation will limit exploitation of Siberian gas. Coal is another alternative fuel which is a problem for the Russians; they have not expanded capacity adequately in response to mine depletion. As a result, Soviet coal production is far below planned levels; moreover, the new and remote Siberian coal supplies have turned out to be of low quality and of little use to current Soviet coal technology. So, the CIA predicts that the Russians, now grappling with their own energy crisis, have little hope of overcoming their current problems through increased production or development of alternative fuels.

Also, the Soviets will not be able to offset the upcoming decline in oil production by a corresponding drop in energy consumption. The Soviet Union

already employs many of the measures which have been proposed for massive United States energy conservation; cogeneration, extensive use of railways for freight shipments, and limited use of passenger automobiles are all already in widespread use in Russia. Soviet energy consumption patterns differ greatly from those of the U.S.: most Russian energy resources are devoted to energy-intensive industry. The Soviet iron and steel industry alone consumes thirteen percent of the nation's energy while the same industry in the U.S. accounts for only three percent of national consumption. Since the Russian economy is based on technology and industry which are essentially energy inefficient, any large scale conservation measures in the Soviet Union would require long time spans, much capital investment, and major reordering of industrial priorities and power elites. Therefore the CIA concludes that the Russians will not be able to cut back consumption effectively for at least seven years.

The ramifications in the Russian economy of an uncompensated oil production decline would be serious. Both the GNP and the foreign trade balance would suffer severe damage from insufficient oil production. If the Soviets were to begin to import oil to meet their projected needs at a normal rate of growth, they would be forced to import up to twenty billion dollars of oil, far more than they could afford or than their balance of payments could permit. Another alternative, absorbing the production into the domestic economy, would entail a lowering of the GNP growth rate by at least one percent; this would worsen the already bleak Soviet economy. The Soviets have also already committed themselves to continue exporting oil to Eastern European countries and other satellites whose economies could never support the costs of buying oil at market prices from the West. This added drain on Soviet supply will force Russia to import OPEC oil for its own needs. As the CIA sums up the future Communist world oil picture: "Since Eastern Europe, Cuba, and the smaller Communist countries are deficit areas and their deficits will grow, we expect that the Communist countries as a group will shift from a position of net oil exporter to one of net oil importer. Even relatively small oil imports would involve a heavy drain on the limited combined foreign exchange earnings of the USSR and Eastern Europe, especially in view of the large increases in oil prices. But the alternative to importing oil would be severe domestic rationing in the Soviet Union and Eastern Europe, involving large economic losses." [Appendix C, page 37]

Although some private research institutions like the Stanford Research Institute have criticized the CIA projections for being overly pessimistic about future supply, the possible damage which oil imports could cause to the Communist economies has implications far too serious to gloss over. While overreaction is an extreme which we certainly need to guard against, complacency and over-reliance on the unstable status quo can be just as dangerous.

Realization of the Soviet oil

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problem leads one to reevaluate Soviet activity around the oil-rich Persian Gulf. Increased Russian military presence in this area signals the Soviets' determination to control or influence a region that will soon be of critical importance to them. While expansionism has always been a characteristic of Soviet foreign policy, the urgency of Russian needs could prompt the Soviets to be bolder and run greater military risks in the Gulf area than we might otherwise expect. Soviet occupation of Afghanistan places more Russian troops right next to the rich Iranian oil fields. Many years of Soviet military build-up have given the Russian a strategic edge in the Gulf region which they could conceivably use to take over unstable oil-producing states. Even if the Russians do not decide to invade these states, the mere ability to do so could give them significant influence in the region. This influence might be used to alter Arab production and pricing policies. The OPEC states are currently trying to limit production below capacity in order to conserve supplies and push up prices; such policies could make the future oil-importing Soviet Union worse off because oil imports will be even more expensive. We cannot expect the Soviets to sit back and allow their economy to deteriorate. The CIA report seems to show the Russians to be up against a wall; how they respond to this situation will probably determine whether or not there will be a major war in the Middle East in the 1980's.

If we are to discourage a confrontation with the Russians in the Persian Gulf vicinity, the U.S. must convince the Soviets that the use of force in the oil region will be counter-productive. In order to make this feasible we must resolve to have adequate conventional military force levels in the region to meet any Soviet advance. Ignoring the Soviet thrust toward Arab oil and the gradual infiltration of the Gulf area with Soviet supported states like Southern Yemen, Ethiopia, Syria, and now Afghanistan will only make an eventual confrontation more likely. We must recognize that unless we provide a credible deterrent to the use of force in the Middle East, we are inviting Soviet aggression: the Soviets would clearly prefer to take the oil they need rather than pay crippling costs for it. Thus American weakness is more likely to lead to war in the Gulf than is a reliable commitment by the U.S. to protect the territorial integrity of the Middle Eastern states. Development of the American strategic position in the Gulf region is perhaps unattractive to many who feel that military preparedness invariably leads to war; however, the U.S. can no longer afford to shirk its geo-political responsibilities by ignoring the world's oil need. Unless the U.S. takes steps to secure the region from Soviet military intervention, the hard military, political, and economic realities of the 1980's could force the U.S. to fight a devastating war for control of Middle Eastern oil. This is a point which all of us who don't want to end up fighting in a desert war in Asia would do well to remember.

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Food And Politics In Bangladesh

Sally Bachman

Rice, water and thin lentil soup are all that Zamina Ali, wife of sharecropper Ataur Ali, can find to cook for her family's dinner tonight. For thirty-four years, Zamina has ended each day with this meal -- varied only with some meat on holidays, and vegetables in the spring. This year there has been a drought, and the price of rice at the bazaar has climbed steadily during the course of the dry season. A seer (two pounds) of rice now costs six taka -- one and a half times the normal price. Ataur Ali's laborer's wage of fifteen taka per day buys less and less from the village market as the drought continues. Lack of rain also threatens to diminish harvests from the fields on which Zamina's sons, Nazim, eighteen, and Farhad, fourteen, work in exchange for half the season's rice and jute yields. Usually, the Ali family survives through the difficult monsoon seasons with Ataur's minimal wage and the rice and jute that their sons bring in at the end of the spring season. This year, however, Zamina wonders how they will manage to eat during the lean months, when it will be too rainy for Ataur Ali, Nazim, and Farhad to find work in their neighbors' fields. In addition to the regular family, Nazim's new bride, Shoba, is another mouth to feed this season, and, from the look of her figure, she will soon contribute one more as well.

Tonight, as Zamina Ali feeds sticks into the fire under the pot of boiling rice, she is thinking: would life have been easier if Allah had not blessed me with such a poor family?

Zamina Ali's situation is typical of the life of the average landless peasant in Bangladesh. She and her family are among eighty-five million people crowded on a land the size of the state of Georgia; ninety percent of them live, like the Alis, in rural villages without electricity, running water, sewers, or readily available medical services. Bangladesh is the fourth largest agricultural society on the globe; only China, India and Indonesia have more peasants. The statistics which describe the magnitude of destitution in Bangladesh are grim: seventy-five percent of the population is illiterate; life expectancy is only forty-eight years; infant mortality numbers up to 148 per thousand, compared to less than five deaths per thousand births in the United States. Sixty percent of the population is malnourished in the best of times and periodic natural disasters lead to the starvation deaths of hundreds of thousands.

The international community responds to the continuing plight of Bangladesh by contributing over $1

billion in annual food-aid assistance. Out of the $800 million of United States economic aid disbursed in fiscal 1978, food aid accounted for only $190 million.

Despite its small dollar value, however, food aid played an important role in the Bangladesh economy. Seventy percent of the Bangladesh development budget is financed with revenues from the sale of food aid through the rationing system. Few foreign donors are aware that little of the benefit from the rationing program, or from the government's gratuitous relief and Food and Work programs, ever reach families of landless laborers like the Alis -- although they comprise over forty percent of the population. Profits from trade in imported food goes into the pockets of import-export agents and wealthy village headmen more often than they go into the pockets of poor families. Most of the wheat and rice from the United States feeds the army and the middle class, serving political rather than humanitarian interests. In addition, the presence of cheap foreign food in Bangladesh creates various disincentives for Bangladeshi farmers. Finally, food aid has considerable political and economic benefits for the donors themselves -- providing profits for shippers, price supports for farmers, and political leverage for United States goals in South Asia.

All redistribution of income is carried from the rich to the poor in a leaky bucket -- some of the redistributed goods inevitably flow back to the rich. The question is: how much, and how can the leaks be stopped?

DISTRIBUTION OF FOOD AID: GRATUITOUS RELIEF

Zamina Ali and her family can receive aid through one of three government distribution channels: gratuitous relief, Food For Work projects, or the permanent rationing system. Each of the three systems exemplifies the way food aid goes astray from its goals.

Gratuitous relief -- gruel kitchens, rice handouts, and the like -- is only a measure of last resort in a national food emergency. The last time free food was handed out on a large scale in Bangladesh was during the devastating famine of 1974. 100,000 people died of starvation that year, although tons of food were distrubuted from government canteens. Throughout the crisis, the Bangladesh government was aware that food was being siphoned off by distributors to be sold on the black market for a hundred percent profit. Wary of the amount of corruption which occurred during the 1974 famine, the Bangladesh government is planning to keep away from food hand outs in the future except in times of extreme crisis. During the drought of 1979, the **Bangladesh Times** reported that the government was reluctant to institute gratuitous relief in the driest and hungriest areas -- notably, the district of Faridpur -- because they felt that, "they had the least control over this method." In addition, free food flooding village markets usually reduces demand for food grown in the immediate area, and so reduces local

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farmers' initiatives to produce more.

FOOD FOR WORK

The same disincentive effects have been observed to accompany Food For Work projects, according to studies by the United States Agency for International Development (USAID) and the Swedish International Development Agency (SIDA). Food For Work projects were devised during the 1974 famine in order to provide food and jobs simultaneously, as well as to help develop the country by using laborers to construct fish tanks, canals, roads and embankments. In 1978, such projects accounted for 15.5% of the government's grain stocks. USAID and CARE (Cooperative for American Relief Everywhere) provides half the grain for the existing Food For Work program in Bangladesh (the other half is provided by the World Food Program and other donor countries). The idea of feeding hungry people in a way that preserved their dignity, and helped develop the country at the same time, seemed like the ideal solution to more than one problem in 1974.

However, the effects of an influx of food on village markets were soon felt. Although the work is designed to employ primarily landless laborers and women, small farmers have, in many cases, left their own fields to work for a wage of three or 3.8 seers (six to 7.6 pounds) of rice or wheat. When the market price of wheat was high, such farmers could sell part of their wage and make enough of a profit to hire a laborer to work on their own land!

These laborers who genuinely need the food wages to survive often complain of receiving less and less of their wage during the course of a Food For Work project, or of being obliged to work longer and more strenuous hours for the same amount of "pay," according to the SIDA report titled "The Public Works Programmes in Bangladesh and Swedish Aid Objectives." Both the Swedish report, and the USAID paper called "Food for Work Secondary Effects Methodology Study," noted that this kind of corruption was a manifestation of the social and economic hierarchy which commonly controls the country -- and Food For Work projects as well.

The markets of Bangla Desh are controlled by a "pyramid of power," according to journalists Betsey Hartmann and James Boyce in their article by the same name which appeared in the March 1979 issue of **Food Monitor.** The pyramid extends to government food distribution efforts as well: the five percent of the population who own twenty percent of arable land in Bangladesh, also control most economic and political power. The groups chosen to administer Food For Work projects usually come from the upper echelons of Bangladesh village society. For example, an anonymous paper entitled "A Disgraceful Fact of Food for Works Programme" names the members of one project committee in Faridpur district: the project committee consisted of nine menbers, "three (of whom) will be elected to the Union Parishad (the local government administration) and the rest will be local elites."

The Faridpur project provides

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an example of the kind of misappropriation of funds which occurs regularly on Food For Work projects: only one quarter of the 800 maunds (2.64 tons) of rice granted to the project, were distributed to laborers. One quarter had been sold for "administration expenses," and one half of the grain was quietly disposed of for the private profit of the project leader. The SIDA and USAID reports found this story to be typical of most Food For Work projects; both concluded that, in general, a large proportion of food allotted for Food For Work projects never trickles down below the peak of the pyramid.

Furthermore, the more lasting effects of the projects -- the embankments and roads and tanks -- rarely benefit the landless laborers who construct them. According to the USAID report, roads and embankments which give flood protection result, on the one had, in increased crop production for landowners, while, on the other hand, putting fishermen out of work by reducing the number of flooded, fish-filled paddies. Roads and fish tanks generally raise land values -- but that has more effect on the landowners who plan the location of those projects, than it has on the landless construction laborers. Without continued maintenance, roads deteriorate and tanks gather silt: "In the absence of maintenance, roads and embankments have lost most of their effectiveness already after two or three years," says the USAID report.

Food For Work projects do have a few beneficial effects, however, notes the SIDA report. Such projects do increase the amount of grain available to the poor. In addition, they also bring more women into the workforce, breaking the traditional customs and superstitions which keep them confined to their homes.

In general, however, both the SIDA and USAID reports, as well as foreign and domestic observers agree: Food For Work programs (in the words of the USAID report) strengthen the existing "exploitative semi-feudal system which now controls most aspects of the village life, (and) speeds up the polarization process in rural areas." The disparity between the five percent of the population which owns fifty percent of the land in Bangladesh, and the rest of the population, is only exacerbated by the unfair distribution of Food For Work money and grain. As it exists now, Food For Work serves the needs of the poor inadequately. Development expert Pamela Harrison, in an interview with Oxfam America, says: "Somebody estimated that if all the Food For Work food was distributed evenly amongst all the landless laborers each person would get about five days of food. It's a very small amount, but it's a very good way of defusing militancy (among the unemployed landless laborers)."

James Boyce and Betsey Hartmann express the central problem of Food For Work programs concisely: "Is giving aid to the rich so they can hire the poor at subsistence wages really the best way to help the poor?"

RATIONING PROGRAM

Food is an explosive issue in

Bangladesh. The price of rice is an topic of daily, almost hourly discussion. Every paisa (1/10 of a taka) spent in the marketplace is preceded by many minutes of haggling. Food prices can be the catalyst for civil demonstrations and riots, like those which occurred in Dacca during the dry month of August, 1979.

Food For Work projects account for only 10% of government food distribution; far more important in terms of volume and political impact is the rationing system. The rationing system now in effect in Bangladesh is a legacy of British efforts to distribute food during the Bengal Famine of 1943. Although the British system was a model rationing program in its time, recent evaluations have condemned it almost unanimously.

Poor families like Zamina Ali and her husband and sons are unlikely to benefit from government food rations. An analysis of the distribution of ration coupons reveals that 1/3 are designated for use by specially privileged groups like the Army, police, government servants, and employees of certain large industries. Another third of the ration cards go to members of the middle class in urban areas. Only one third of the ration cards go to rural areas --- where 85% of the population of Bangladesh lives!

Supplies of grain are allocated in even more imbalanced proportions: 41% goes to privileged groups (the Army, police, etc.), 24.5% to statuatory rationing in urban areas, and only 19% to rural areas. Army rations are sold through Army canteens; other rationed supplies are sold by licensed distributors. Because dealers make a sizeable profit on their transactions, the award of a distributor's license is "often a key form of political patronage," say Hartmann and Boyce. "The rural ration dealers siphon off a substantial portion of the foodgrains and sell them on the black market." "The local dealer in our area received the job because his father-in-law had been head of the local administrative body, the union council."

Apart from the simple inequities of grain distribution through the rationing system, a glance at these figures indicates the political import of the rationing system: the government of Bangladesh is providing food at subsidized prices to key political groups. The rationing system is "largely providing cheap subsidized food to the urban middle class, particularly the army, police, and civil servants." As a result, Bangladesh is losing money on a transaction that should yield substantial revenues: the stated aim of concessional food aid (which includes 94% of United States food aid) is to relieve burdens on the budgets of developing countries, not to add to them.

Many critics of the Bangladesh government connect the political aspect of food rationing in Bangladesh with the political and economic policies of the current President of the People's Republic of Bangladesh, Major General Zia ur-Rahman. General Zia is characterized by most reports as a man of integrity and drive, who berates his own relatives when he catches them in any corrupt acts. However, Lawrence Lifschultz, in **Bangladesh: The Unfinished Revo-**

lution, chronicles General Zia's rise to power through collaboration with the Socialist Party of Bangladesh, and his consolidation of his position through the secret trial and execution of his most popular rival, socialist leader Colonel Abu Taher. Lifschultz, who spent three years in Bangladesh and India as a correspondent was thrown out of Bangladesh for reporting on the trial of Col. Taher. Like Pamela Harrison, he thinks that the ration system serves primarily to buy off potential opposition to the government which might arise among the middle classes. He concludes: "Without foreign aid, the Zia government could not stay in power."

Journalists Hartmann and Boyce protest that General Zia is spending more money on building his army than on developing Bangladesh. "Expenditures for defense, justice, and the police have grown from 20% of the revenue (in 1975) . . . to 30% (in 1978)," they say in "Bangladesh: Aid to the Needy?" General Zia made the police a military force in 1976, increased the amount of food rationed to the army in subsequent years, and has been building several large military bases around the country. Hartmann and Boyce surmise that General Zia must be trying to consolidate his strongarm control over the country. Bangladesh is too weak to be arming for a fight against India, they point out, and there is little likelihood that any other country will threaten Bangladesh's security in the near future. Although reports in the press indicate that the political temperature of the country is low, Bangladeshis and foreigners inside the country report that General Zia's coercive measures have increased in the fall of 1979. Referring to an Amnesty International report, Hartmann and Boyce conclude that the comparative economic stability of General Zia's four years in power has been bought at the price of liberty -- and that state of affairs could not have been accomplished without the support of foreign aid.

Few people are likely to argue that the rationing system distributes food equally; yet some will defend the view that a strong government is necessary for continued development in Bangladesh. This is the position of most governments who give bilateral (government to government) aid to Bangladesh. It is, as well, the view of most international lending agencies, who are interested primarily in the return of their loans, and, therefore, in the short-term stability of the economy. Under freemarket policy and martial law instituted in 1976 under Zia, the Bangladesh economy has achieved an annual growth rate of 4.5%. The country seems to have gained political stability as well -- in June 1978, General Zia was elected President of Bangladesh in free elections; the first in three years. Although signs of social unrest remain, such as the demonstration against high food prices organized by the Awame League (the leading opposition party), General Zia seems to enjoy continuing popular support, primarily because his economic policies seem to be working.

Working for whom? A portrait of food aid to Bangladesh is not complete without a picture of donors -- their interests and alliances.

The United States gave more

than $312.1 million in foreign aid to Bangladesh in 1977. Of that amount, food aid shipments totaled $104 million. But the grant is more complicated than a simple number. The United States grain is given under the auspices of Title I (concessionary loans for the purchase of grain) and Title II (emergency grants) of the notorious Public Law 480 (PL480) -- notorious because when it was first enacted, in the 1950's, it put into law the means for American farmers and grain dealers to make profits from "aid." As critics complained, and crops declined during the 1960's and 1970's, PL480 has gradually been amended to become more genuinely altruistic: the written purpose of the Law is no longer specifically to help American farmers. But intentions do not always coincide with practice; food aid still "depends on what is available," according to Pamela Harrison, and Bangladesh still pays for all the food "aid" obtained from the United States. "Food aid is a popular form of foreigh aid on Capitol Hill because it benefits the donor economy more than the recipient," according to Donald F. McHenry and Kai Bird in "Food Bungle in Bangladesh," an article published in **Foreign Affairs** in 1977.

In fact, say McHenry and Bird, United States officials use food aid as a political weapon. Food aid is granted to governments which agree to "use the proceeds from the sale of commodities to increase the access of the poor in the recipient country to an adequate, nutritious and stable food supply," according to Section 6a and b of PL480, amended in December 1975. But despite the laudable sentiments written into PL480, the sale of food aid through the inequitable Bangladeshi ration system continues. Because 94% of American food aid goes to Bangladesh under Title I of PL480, well-meaning Americans can do little to affect distribution once the grain arrives in Dacca; that is, once the Bangladeshi government has bought the grain under a Title I concessionary (long term) loan, and paid for the shipping, the grain itself belongs to the purchaser. Unfavorable reports on the Bangladeshi ration system -- through which most of United States food aid is distributed -- have been published by **Foreign Affairs, International Policy Reports, New Internationalist**, and have been the subject of testimony before several Congressional committees. Yet PL480 grains continue to flow to Bangladesh.

Humanitarian interests count for little in the United States Congress, claim McHenry and Bird; political interests are much more powerful in determining the award of food aid. They point out large grants of food aid were given to Pakistan "as a symbol of our diplomatic commitment" to a unified Pakistan during the Bangladeshi Liberation War in 1971. After 1971, food aid was granted to Bangladesh in order to help it combat the threat of an Indian takeover and to keep the goodwill of a South Asian ally which happens to be nestled among a group of nations hostile to American interests.

FOOD AID: HALT OR CONTINUE?

Zamina Ali and her family are unlikely to benefit from continued American food aid awards to the government

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of Bangladesh -- life for landless laborers like the Ali family is the same now as it was a thousand years ago, and as it will be, with or without an increase in American food aid. Grain from American fields rarely trickles down from the peak of the pyramid of power which governs the Bangladesh economy; and the Ali family is unlikely to climb upward on the pyramid, given the social, political and economic fetters which weigh them down.

"While foreign aid cannot be expected to solve Bangladesh's problems, at least it should not exacerbate them," protest Hartmann and Boyce. Suggestions for alternatives to food aid range from simply cutting off aid to countries where food is being directed to politically expedient groups to re-chanelling United States foreign aid from food to support of small-scale, labor-intensive village development projects, run by and for people like the Alis.

Zamina Ali, cooking her family's evening meal, has little knowledge of the international implications of the Food For Work project which has constructed the dike in her village, or of the real meaning of the ration card with which her sister buys an extra seer of rice every week. When asked about her opinions on United States food aid, Zamina says only: "I wish that the army had less, and we could get more of it."

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The Dangerous Balance In World Power

Jay Young

During the last week of 1979, a shocked world watched as Soviet troops rolled into Afghanistan in order to install a regime more acceptable to Moscow. For the first time since the Second World War, Russian soldiers are actively conducting a campaign outside of their traditional sphere of influence. This splendid example of naked aggression has opened the eyes for many in the West to Russia's new willingness to employ its immense military power. Today, we live in an era of strategic parity. The United States can no longer threaten Russia with "massive retaliation"; The Soviet buildup in strategic arms has been accompanied by a paralled expansion in conventional forces. In the past, lack of substantial navy or any significant long range heavy air transport capability kept Russian forces from carrying out sustained operations in areas far from the U.S.S.R. Since that time, the Russian military planners have concentrated on these weakenesses and have forged a highly flexible and versatile military capability.

Even before October 1962, Russian leaders had already begun to plan for a major expansion of all areas of the Soviet military machine. The embarassing **volte face** forced upon them in Cuba by the United States merely confirmed to the Soviets the need for a rapid buildup of Russian military strength. Thus, beginning in 1963 and continuing on up to the present day, the U.S.S.R. has steadily expanded its military capabilities in both the strategic and conventional areas. In **White House Years**, Henry Kissinger notes that the U.S.S.R. possessed in 1965 220 ICBMs and 120 SLBMs. The London based International Institute of Strategic Studies today credits the U.S.S.R. with having 1400 ICBMs, 1015 SLBMs, 710 MRBMs and IRBMs, and 135 strategic bombers. The Soviets have also made substantial advances in strategic weapons technology. Along with the U.S., they have developed and deployed multiple independent nuclear warheads(MIRVs) for their modern missiles and they have increased the accuracy of their latest land based missiles to the extent that they may now rival the accuracy of the U.S. systems. The Soviets have also managed to deploy an SLBM with a range of over 4800 nautical miles. The U.S. C-4 Trident missile, which is not yet operational, will have a range of about 4000 NM. Additionally, Soviet warheads have significantly higher yields than the U.S. warheads.

Since the late 1960's, the United States has maintained a static strategic force level of 1054 ICBMs and 656 SLBMs. Most of the U.S. missiles are like the more modern Russian ones, equipped with multiple warheads. The United States also has 435 strategic bombers. At present, U.S. strategic forces can still deliver 11,000 warheads vs. 5000 (rising to 7500 in the early 1980's) for the U.S.S.R. The U.S. force structure will, of course, change with the deployment of new systems such as the Trident submarine and the MX missile. The United States still maintains some technological advantages over the U.S.S.R. , mainly in certain areas of missile accuracy, particularly in submarine missiles. The U.S. is also far ahead of the Russians in the development of cruise missiles

Although argument still rages over whether the U.S.S.R. has actually achieved strategic superiority over the United States, there is now little doubt that a rough strategic parity exists between the superpowers. The United States can no longer threaten the U.S.S.R. with a devastating nuclear attack and always expect it to behave because the Russians now have the capability to inflict at least an equal amount of damage on the United States. This strategic parity means that the U.S.S.R.'s superiority in conventional land forces, combined with the spectacular growth in its navy, must be viewed in an entirely different light.

Strategic parity means that many of the previous constraints placed on the exploitation by the Soviet Union of its conventional superiority are now gone. Today, and for the foreseeable future, the United States must face a Soviet strategic arsenal at least as formidable as its own. The U.S. cannot use its nuclear forces to check the Russians with the same degree of confidence it did in a previous era. Thus, it follows that if the Soviet Union has a substantial advantage in the area of conventional and/or theater nuclear forces, it can use this advantage as a diplomatic tool in certain important areas around the world. The increased uncertainty about U.S. willingness to use strategic nuclear weapons, combined with the realization that the Soviets are superior in both theater nuclear forces and conventional forces might lead some countries to seek separate arrangements with the U.S.S.R. As mentioned earlier, the Russian military programs of the last fifteen years have not neglected the modernization and expansion of the U.S.S.R.'s conventional forces. From the mid 1960's, the Russians have worked diligently to improve the capabilities of their navy and the state of their weapons technology (especially in tanks and aircraft).

The Soviet fleet now operates 250 major surface combat ships and an equal number of attack submarines. While it is true that this imposing force is divided up into Black Sea, Baltic, Arctic Ocean, and Pacific fleets, it is certainly a match for the opposing Western forces in many of these areas. Soviet amphibious lift and fleet replenishment capability has also increased significantly. The U.S.S.R. can now deploy and support

elements of its navy just about anywhere it wants to. It can also transport supplies and men to almost any area in the world. In comparison, in the last ten years, the number of major surface combat ships in the U.S. Navy has shrunk from over 300 to 172. The U.S.N. has only eighty attack submarines though almost all of them are nuclear powered.

Individual Soviet ship capabilities have also improved. Almost all Soviet ships are armed with a formidable combination of guns, surface to surface and surface to air missiles and anti-submarine warfare weapons. Comparable Western classes of vessels often cannot match the firepower of the Soviet ships. The Soviets have also abandoned their previous dislike of aircraft carriers and now operate three **Kiev** class ships. These vessels are of an advanced design and represent the growing sophistication and imagination of Soviet naval architects. They also represent a new Soviet desire to acquire the ability to project airpower from ships, both ashore and against sea targets. Though the **Kiev** class lacks some of the sophisticated electronics found on Western ships and does not carry as large or as diversified an air complement as a U.S. super carrier, it does not have to rely on many escorts for protection. Unlike U.S. carriers, the **Kievs** have an offensive and defensive capability separate from their air complement. The 1980 edition of **Jane's Fighting Ships** reports that the Soviets are building two huge warships which seem to resemble the battlecruisers of an earlier era. If true, this is yet another indication of the Soviet's desire to construct an impressive and powerful navy that can both effectively interfere with Western naval operations and act to "show the flag" and increase Soviet prestige around the world.

The number of Russian fleet auxiliary ships and submarines has grown as well. The U.S.S.R. has greatly expanded its amphibious assault forces. It now has eighty-four amphibious assault vessels that provide added mobility for Soviet forces in Europe, Asia, and the capability to intervene anywhere else in the world. To help its growing navy operate in distant seas, the Soviets have also added to their inventory of tankers and fleet replenishment ships and have built a huge merchant marine. The Russian submarine force is quite large and poses a major threat to the security of Western sea routes. The vast number of Soviet attack submarines can only serve to make rapid reinforcement of Europe (and other areas) by the United States more difficult, if not impossible.

The current crisis in Iran and Central Asia demonstrates well the weakness of the U.S. Navy and its inability to deal effectively with the Soviet challenge. Events in Iran led to the dispatch from the Western Pacific of the Seventh Fleet's two carriers and appropriate support forces. This has left the Western Pacific without any U.S. carrier task force group and has given the Soviets (with their large and powerful Pacific fleet) the opportunity to exploit American weakness in the region.

The Russians, some fear, might consider using their current naval superiority in the area to expand military facilities at Cam Ranh Bay or Da Nang in Vietnam. This would threaten vital U.S. installations in the Philippines and the security of the South Coast of China. The Russians might also move to establish large forces on the Kamchatka peninsula at Petropavlovsk or in the Kurile Islands, thereby further endangering Japan and China. As **New York Times** military correspondent Drew Middleton observed in a recent article: "The harsh truth discernable in the record of naval deployments is that the United States Navy does not have sufficient aircraft carriers and surface ships to carry out its normal commitments and provide simultaneously for distant crises on a long term basis."

The Soviets have also been hard at work building up their land and air forces. Since 1967, the Russians have increased the number of tanks in their army from 34,000 to 50,000. U.S. tank numbers have remained at 10,000 since 1967. Today, the U.S.S.R. has more tanks in Eastern Europe than the U.S. has in its entire army. In the years 1965-78, the U.S.S.R. deployed two new types of tanks (the T-62 and the T-72). The United States has not introduced a new main battle tank for almost twenty years. While perhaps not as advanced as the latest Western prototypes, the newest Soviet tanks are almost as sophisticated as the Western tanks, better than the U.S. tanks now in service, and deployed in significant numbers. The January 21 issue of **Time** Magazine quoted a British armor expert as saying, "The armor gap is so great that the West is falling hopelessly behind in getting vehicles into the field." The Russians also have added more and increasingly better armored personnel carriers, transport and attack helicopters and surface to air missiles.

Indeed, their traditional numerical superiority in land forces (which they have maintained and expanded) has been matched by a steady increase in the quality of their weapons. The International Institute of Strategic Studies now believes that the U.S.S.R. makes better SAMs and artillery than the western countries and is pulling ahead in certain categories of armoured vehicles. The Institute's 1978 report on East-West theater balance in Europe reported that "while NATO has been modernizing faster and expanding as well... in general the pattern is one of a balance moving against the West."

The Soviet air force has significantly upgraded the quality of its aircraft. It has introduced sophisticated new interceptors such as the Mig-23 and Mig-25. Additionally, the Russians have at last overcome their inability to match the tactical versatility of Western planes and are deploying effective multi-role aircraft for ground attack/support roles such as the Mig-27, Su-17/20 **Fitter**, and the Su-19 **Fencer**. Also, the new and sophisticated **Backfire** bomber, when armed with long range missiles, poses a more substantial threat to Western naval vessels and merchant shipping than it does to the Bronx. The Warsaw Pact has also been in-

creasing the number as well as the quality of aircraft in its inventories. In Europe today, the Pact forces deploy 5700 tactical aircraft to NATO's 3767. Once again, these Soviet aircraft are often, on a one to one basis, inferior to their Western counterparts. The F-15 fighter, which is finally reaching the U.S. forces, is the best aircraft of its type in the world. But, once again, the Soviets are flying aircraft that are almost as good as the western planes and they have a lot more of them .

For many years, Western military policy has been to use technological superiority to offset the vast numerical strength of the U.S.S.R. The Russians however have closed the technological gap to such an extent that numbers can now make a difference. The F-15 is a better plane than the Mig-25. In the hands of a competent pilot it may always prevail in individual combat with the Russian plane. But as James Fallows pointed out in the October 1979 **Atlantic Monthly**:
"In massed fighting, similar to the swarm warfare nearly everyone says would be likely in any European battle, confusion played a much larger role and exotic weaponry a smaller one. . ." The Germans and the British build better tanks than the Russians, and the new U.S. XM-1 tank would appear to be a marvel of modern technology. But will this make a difference when NATO's 11,000 tanks are faced with an assault by 28,000 or more Warsaw Pact tanks that are almost as good? After inspecting a captured Russian tank, the late General Creighton Abrams told Admiral Elmo Zumwalt: "I got in that goddamn tank, and it didn't have all the fancy things the colonels want in our tanks, you couldn't push a button on the joy stick and make the thing turn around, but it could do every damn thing you want a tank to do."

To complete this gloomy picture it is necessary to observe that the U.S.S.R. has augmented its theater nuclear capability by increasing the number of weapons it deploys and modernizing them as well. The Russians now have 710 intermediate range ballistic missiles (including many of the MIRV's highly accurate SS-20s) to NATO's 18 and 4151 nuclear armed aircraft (including the **Backfire** bomber) to NATO's 1658. The Russian forces can deliver 2,244 nuclear warhead to NATO's 1,181. This theater nuclear superiority, combined with the Warsaw Pact's conventional superiority, is of immense concern to NATO.

What all these facts and figures mean is that the U.S.S.R. is now capable, unless it is met by sufficient Allied strength and resolve, of using its military superiority in various theaters as a diplomatic bargaining tool to try to win concessions from other countries. And now that they have achieved strategic parity with the U.S., the Russians have not hesitated to throw their weight around. The recent debate in NATO over whether to deploy the Pershing II missile (so as to offset the Russian SS-20) was intensified by Leonid Brezhnev's generous offer to withdraw some older missiles and second line troops if the West chose not to deploy

the Pershings. Failure to accept this offer could only lead the U.S.S.R. to adopt a harsher stance toward Western Europe. Influential factions in the West German Social Democratic Party and in the Dutch Parliament's defense committee urged NATO not to deploy the missiles for fear of further angering the Russians. Their concern arose both from a genuine desire to control the arms race and a growing fear that the United States is losing both the capability and the resolve to use its power to defend Europe. Though the alliance approved deployment of the Pershings, certain groups in several key NATO countries continue to hesitate before accepting additional weapons programs because of their perception of American weakness in the face of massive Soviet strength.

Professor Frederick Barghoorn of the Yale Political Science department believes that the recent buildup of Soviet military power in Europe was designed largely with the goal of intimidation in mind. The Soviets, he thinks, will use their new military might to try to "drive wedges between the United States and its NATO allies." The Russians will exploit NATO's "internal divisions and use military power to try to convince certain Western countries that resistance would be hopeless and that a more pro-Soviet stance would be in the country's best interests." The Russians could then, after threatening with the military "stick", offer an economic "carrot" such as increased trade concessions. That Soviet strength can be used to intimidate the Western Europeans became apparent during the recent visit by Chairman Hua to the German Federal Republic. The West German government deliberately played down the visit so as not to give the Soviets even the slightest cause to believe that Germany supported China in any way. The hesitant support given the U.S. during the current crisis by its continental European allies is certainly indicative of how much these countries fear losing the Russian market for their exports. But is it not also an indication of their concern for Russia's massive military strength in Europe and NATO's relative weakness?

America's post-Vietnam hesitancy to venture abroad, combined with an increased Russian intervention capability, has allowed the Soviets to exploit overseas opportunities in Asia, Africa and Latin America. As **New York Times** reporter Richard Halloran remarked in the December 16, 1979 edition, "While the threat from Soviet nuclear forces or from ground forces in Europe is the more severe, the possibility of hostilities in the Third World that threaten American interests is the more likely." The new Soviet naval and air transports have enabled the U.S.S.R. to dispatch and sustain Cuban task forces in Angola and Ethiopia. Since late December 1979, Soviet strategic airlift planes have been instrumental in keeping the 90,000 men and 1750 tanks the Russians have in Afghanistan well-supplied and operational. Air transport ability is a factor of crucial importance in a country with few good

roads. Russia can now rapidly resupply her overseas allies with additional hardware. This became apparent in the 1973 Middle East war and during the recent fighting in Eritrea and Vietnam-Cambodia.

Soviet naval forces now prowl around in areas where only ten years ago they did not have the capability to operate for any length of time. The Soviets have also augmented their land and naval forces in the Far East in order to watch the Chinese and remind Japan of Russian power. The U.S.S.R.'s moves to strengthen its Pacific fleet and its recent reinforcement of its garrison in the Kurile Islands have greatly alarmed the Japanese, who are now debating rearmament and asking for more help from the United States. Thus, the Soviets now have the ability to threaten vital Western interests in the Pacific, Central Asia and the Middle East. Recent events in these areas have served to highlight the glaring weaknesses in the U.S. conventional force structure and its current inability to meet effectively even some of the most basic security needs.

The rapid growth of Soviet military power in the last fifteen years poses immense problems for the United States. William Hyland, former deputy Assistant for National Security Affairs, observed in the Fall 1979 issue of **Foreign Affairs** that Leonid Brezhnev will pass on to his successors "an inheritance of military power unrivaled in Russian history since the Days when the Tsar strode into Paris at the end of the long march from Borodino."

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Hobbes, Aristotle And The Draft

Peter Ahrensdorf

On January 23, 1980, President Carter proposed to the nation the reinstitution of draft registration as a preparation for a possible draft in the future. The President's proposal met with resounding popular approval. But it was also greeted by a hail of verbal attacks from certain key influential groups around the country: the American Civil Liberties Union, the National Organization of Women, and sundry leftist and libertarian student organizations. While these groups' voices are currently drowned out by the chorus of popular support for the President, the power of their reasoned arguments is bound to be felt as the people's outrage at Soviet military aggression peaks and subsides. Therefore, for the sake of intelligent and fruitful public debate, and in order to avoid a cycle of fervent pro-draft and equally fervent anti-draft sentiment that can only confuse and divide the country, these groups' arguments against registration and against the draft must be examined dispassionately and evaluated now.

The most important argument against registration and the draft is the moral rather than the technical argument. Only the nation's political leaders and military experts can accurately determine whether it is necessary for the protection of the nation's interests to reinstitute registration and the draft. But it behooves all of us, as thoughtful citizens, to determine whether it is morally right for the government to demand that we risk our lives for the nation's interests. If the government lacks this moral right, it must forgo the reinstitution of registration and the draft and seek out legitimate means to protect the nation's interests. Moreover, while the technical arguments against registration and against the draft are not one and the same, since the needs of the nation change as circumstances change, the moral arguments against registration and against the draft are identical, since only if compulsory military service is morally right can the preparation for such a service, that is, the registration for the draft, be morally right.

The moral argument against the draft is heard from both the left and the right wings of the political spectrum. Both Senator Kennedy and Governor Reagan oppose the draft. Last September, during the debate on draft registration in the House of Representatives, a rarely seen coalition of liberals and conservatives opposed -- in strikingly similar language--compulsory military service. Congress-

man Kastenmeier, a liberal, warned:

A a time when the American public is demanding less Government interference in their lives and less Government control over their lives, what is being proposed here today represents the most serious threat to the freedom of an individual--absolute and total control by the Government."

Congresswoman Schroeder, who is also a liberal, averred:

"I think the lessons of the 60's are that we cannot put Americans in uniform and send them out unless they are convinced that they are truly definding the future of America and that they are standing for the moral premises America has stood for in the past."

Congressman Paul, a staunch conservative, proclaimed:

"In a country like America, the individual himself must make this the decision when and if to serve his country."

And again, referring to the draft:

"It is wrong, it is unjust, and it contradicts every fundamental principle of freedom."

These arguments oppose the very principle of compulsory military service. While some House members signalled their approval of a war-time draft, they implied that in war-time all citizens would see the need to serve in the armed forces and would not have to be compelled to fight. These arguments all denounce the right of the government to compel the individual to place his own life in jeopardy. Even if the government is elected and supported by the majority of the country, the individual, as Congressman Paul affirmed, "must make this the decision when and if to serve his country." When it comes down to imperilling his life, the individual's self-interest cannot be subordinated to the interests of the state. The moral argument against the draft assumes that only the individual has the right to determine whether to risk his life. It thus assumes that the individual's self-interests can and must be considered apart from the interests of the state. The individual is a member of the state only insofar as the state advances his own self-interest; when the state's interests do not coincide with the individual's interest concerning his self-preservation, he may withdraw his membership from the state. And such a divergence of interests is inevitable, since what is good for the state is not always good for the individual. Put simply, the moral argument against the draft assumes that man is by nature an unpolitical animal who always retains the right to abandon the state's interests (e.g., to wage war for the nation's security) as it understands them, if they fundamentally disagree with his self-interest (e.g., to preserve his life at all costs) as he understands it.

In order to see more clearly the ramifications of this argument, we must investigate the theoretical roots of its view of man as an unpolitical animal. Such an investigation leads us to the first champion

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of this view in the history of political thought, Thomas Hobbes. Hobbes claims that men are by nature utterly selfish individuals who do not live in any kind of community and have absolutely no inclination to do so. Their unbridled pursuit of self-interest leads to a continual war of all against all, a war that threatens to engulf and consume the lives of all men. Their fear of death eventually impels these unpolitical men to make a contract with one another whereby they all agree to live peaceably together and refrain from acts of war. Individuals enter society, then, purely for the sake of their own self-preservation. Within society, they continue to be utterly selfish men engaged in utterly selfish pursuits; but they obey the laws in order to avoid the state of war that unleashes the menace of violent death. Hobbesian society, then, is a social contract between individuals who continue to detest each other but who enter society in order to save their own skins.

A problem arises in Hobbesian society when the state is forced by an external threat to call on its members to risk their lives. On the one hand, the state cannot survive without individuals who are willing to risk their lives; on the other hand, since the individual joins society and obeys the state only in order to preserve his own life, the state cannot legitimately command him to endanger his life. If the state is vanquished, the individuals who make up the state will perish. But why should one individual who inhabits the state solely in order to preserve his own life risk his life so that others whom he by nature detests may live? The terms of the social contract only require the individual to obey the laws for the sake of his own neck. If they were to require him to risk the very life he seeks to secure, he would never agree to the contract.

Faced with this conflict between the interests of the state and the interests of the individual, Hobbes declares that the state has the right to compel the individual to risk his life by threatening him with certain death. Only by posing to the individual the choice of certain death through draft resistance and possible death through military service can the state enable the individual to risk his life out of self-interest. But Hobbes acknowledges that this compulsion is not morally right by granting the individual who is captured by the enemy the right to betray his country if his life is threatened. Having erected a society on the basis of self-interest, Hobbes must sanction the use of brute force in order to preserve that society. Like the current opponents of the draft, Hobbes believes that the state cannot legitimately subordinate the individual's desire for self-preservation to the state's desire for self-preservation. But unlike the current opponents of the draft, Hobbes is convinced that just as the individual has a moral right to self-preservation, the state has a moral right to self-preservation. Since both the state and the individual have this right,

the conflict between the two can only be decided by might. And the individual will always lose in such a conflict. Thus, for Hobbes, compulsory military service is not immoral, as the anti-draft spokesmen aver; it is an amoral policy followed by the state for the sake of its self-preservation and implemented through brute force. When thought through to its final consequences, the elevation of the individual's selfish desire for self-preservation to the status of a moral right that Hobbes and the anti-draft spokesmen propose leads to the elevation of the state's selfish desire for self-preservation to the status of a moral right as well. As a result of this argument, the naturally unpolitical individual will never go to war for any moral reason, since the only morality he understands is the morality of saving his own skin; he will only go for fear of being crushed by the almighty Leviathan.

Having uncovered and surveyed the grim Hobbesian view of man and society that underlies contemporary opposition to the draft, we might wonder whether there exists an alternative view of man and society that could form the basis of a moral argument for the draft. Hobbes himself points us to the alternative outlook of his great intellectual adversary whose thought he plumbed and spurned: Aristotle. Their vastly different political philosophies can be traced to one simple disagreement: while Hobbes insists that man is by nature an unpolitical animal, Aristotle contends that man is by nature a political animal. According to Aristotle, man is a creature whose happiness derives from sharing his life with others, with friends, family, and fellow citizens. Man cannot be a happy and fulfilled human being if he does not live in a community wherin he can enjoy the company of his fellows. Indeed, outside of a community, a man cannot be truly human: he reverts to the bestial savagery which Hobbes terms the natural human condition. The community gives man the opportunity to become fully human by associating with his fellow citizens and by pursuing the highest human pleasure: friendship. Aristotle claims that the community aims at achieving through its laws and customs the good will and steadfast loyalty that freely exists among friends. And though patriotism among citizens never fosters the intimacy that friendship fosters among private individuals, the citizens' sense of common purpose regarding the ideals of the community gives rise to the self-forgetting civic-mindedness that always exalts the human spirit. Thus, the individual in such a community can never claim that his self-interest is ever wholly separate from the interests of the community, for his happiness and his humanity are inextricably bound up with the community. Indeed, he is in debt to the community for the very possibility of his happiness and his humanity.

The community, then, has a moral right to demand that its citizens risk life and limb if the community perceives its vital interests to be at stake. A community that bestows on its citizens such a rich and fulfilling life can legitimately demand great

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sacrifices from them, including military service. While a social contract that offers the individual mere self-preservation cannot morally compel him to fight (though it can amorally compel him), a community that gives the individual the very possibility of human happiness can legitimately compel him to fight. Put another way, while a society that views human beings as being naturally selfish cannot legitimately demand that they act nobly, a society that views human beings as being naturally noble can.

This investigation shows that our conclusion regarding the morality of the draft must be rooted in our vision of American society. We must ask ourselves: do we belong to a Hobbesian social contract made up of selfish men and women or to an Aristotelian community made up of civic-minded and patriotic men and women? If we belong to the former, the draft is at best an amoral policy; if we belong to the latter the draft is morally right. Lest we fail to grasp concretely what this choice means for us as Americans, we must look to our history and compare what kind of society we had under the Founding Fathers, when our society had a social contract and had no draft, with the kind we had under Lincoln, when our society was a political community and had a draft. At the time that the Constitution was framed, America was, theoretically, dedicated to the twin ideals of freedom and equality. By defining what principles America stood for, our Constitution laid down a moral basis for American society. In short, America was -- on paper -- a community made up of public-spirited citizens. But the founders gravely compromised our moral integrity by tolerating what a truly free society can never tolerate: slavery. After the Constitution was ratified, our society remained united with respect to our security but divided with respect to our most fundamental moral principle: the proposition that all men are created equal. Put simply, our nation was in fact a social contract between slave states and free states united only in the desire for self-preservation and the selfish pursuits of selfish interests.

Abraham Lincoln challenged the notion that such a social contract could long endure even as a partially free society. He argued that men who could not affirm that slavery was an evil could not be truly dedicated to freedom: "I believe that this government cannot endure permanently half slave and half free." If America did not end its toleration of the slavery of black men, it would imperil the freedom of white men as well. Lincoln averred that only a political community with a firm moral basis could keep the flame of liberty burning. America had to uphold her moral principles or relinquish her position as the best hope for freedom on earth. And if America did in fact uphold her moral principles, Lincoln affirmed that she had a moral right to demand of her people unswerving dedication to those principles. Thus it was not accidental that Lincoln was the first American President to institute compulsory military service. For he was the first American President to bid

Americans to stand up and defend the moral fiber of the nation. His belief in the morality of compulsory military service grew out of his vision of American society as a political community. A social contract that tolerated slavery had no moral right to demand more of its members than the selfish pursuit of selfish interests within the scope of the law. But a political community dedicated to freedom and equality has the moral right to demand from its citizens dedication to freedom and equality. Only a political community truly devoted to freedom can compel its citizens to die for freedom.

We must decide which course we will follow. If we reject the moral right of the government to reinstitute compulsory military service, we must resign ourselves to membership in a social contract made up of selfish men and women pursuing selfish goals. If we accept the moral right of the government to reinstitute compulsory military service, we must embrace the vision of an American community dedicated first and foremost to freedom and equality. Shall we follow the course that Lincoln charted or shall we return to the compromises of his predecessors? There is no more important question for Americans to answer. Although the threat to freedom now comes from abroad rather than from among us, the central questions remain the same. If a government cannot demand sacrifices of life and limb from its people, if a government cannot intrude on the individual's selfish pursuit of selfish interests, can it ever stand for more than physical security and material prosperity? And if security and prosperity count for more than freedom, is a liberal democracy clearly superior to other forms of government? Is a government that is not worth dying for truly worth living under? The path of Lincoln leads to freedom and equality. It is not easy or smooth but it is the finest. Dare we follow it? If we do not dare, if we return to the social contract of our early history, we must seriously ask ourselves for the first time in generations whether "government of the people, by the people, and for the people shall not perish from the earth."



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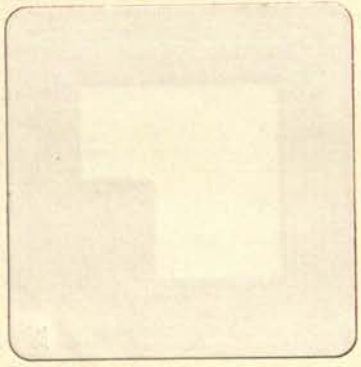
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